Tri-Modal Fusion for Real-Time Disaster Intelligence: Integrating Environmental Sensor Metadata, Satellite Imagery, and Social Media Through Adaptive Cross-Attention

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***Abstract*—When disasters strike, responders need to make sense of many different data sources quickly—but most current systems only look at one type of data at a time, whether that is social media posts, satellite photos, or sensor readings. A lot of useful context gets lost this way. This paper introduces a Tri-Modal Fusion framework that brings together environmental and seismological metadata (weather, seismic, storm, and hydrological readings), satellite damage imagery, and social media image–text pairs using pairwise cross-attention with adaptive gating. The framework has three specialized sub-models. The first, an AdaptiveIoTClassifier, uses per-group confidence-weighted sensor fusion and reaches 97.64% classification accuracy on 63,527 samples drawn from six Kaggle datasets. The second, an AdaptiveFusionClassifier, pairs a BLIP Vision Transformer with an XLM-RoBERTa encoder through bidirectional cross-modal attention, scoring 86.39% accuracy on CrisisMMD—12.39% above SVM baselines. The third is a modified DeepLabV3+ that generates both pixel-level damage segmentation and compact 640-dimensional embeddings from xBD satellite imagery, trained with class-weighted CrossEntropy loss on GPU hardware. These three embedding streams feed into a TriFusionLayer with three pairwise cross-attention blocks and a learned modality gate, which produces 99.41% priority classification accuracy and 0.0398 severity MAE, cutting error by 65.8% compared to the crisis-only baseline. We perform ablation experiments using four possible combinations of modalities. Each new data stream improves the results, and even if 30% of modalities are randomly removed, the model remains stable. Adding 5%–20% Gaussian noise on the inference phase shows expected behavior: accuracy reduces gradually without dropping sharply. On the explainability side, we port the gradient-weighted attention rollout of Chefer et al. [18] over to tri-modal inputs and wrap it in a four-tier XAI fallback so that something interpretable is always returned. End-to-end, the pipeline runs live, figures out the disaster type on its own, and keeps producing output when one or two input streams drop.**

***Index Terms*—Disaster management, multimodal fusion, cross-attention, environmental sensors, satellite imagery, social media analysis, deep learning, explainable AI**

I. Introduction

Natural disasters resulted in global losses of over $380 billion in 2023, and after-action reports from CRED continue to identify slow situational awareness as a contributing cause for much of the mortality [1]. These first hours are known as the "golden window" among responders, and are often predictive of response efforts as a whole. The problem is that leaders throughout that window are generally forced to make decisions from piecemeal information from a single source. A seismic reading without any context of physical destruction. A social media post from an individual on the ground with no sensory corroboration. A satellite photo with no ground truth.

Most of the disaster-management tooling that exists today is wired to a single data type. Sensor-based systems [2] catch physical events but say little about the human toll. Social media [3], [4] hands you voices from the ground but not the physical measurements that go with them. Satellite assessments [5] cover a lot of geography, yet they cannot deliver real-time ground truth. Every stream fills part of the picture; every stream leaves gaps that one of the others could patch.

Our proposed **Tri-Modal Fusion** framework addresses this issue. It combines three data streams: environmental metadata, satellite images of damage, and image/text posts from social media into one architecture by utilizing learned cross-modal attention with adaptive gating. The key difference between our framework and previous multi-modal models is that this framework does not necessarily require all three inputs for operation.

Terminology. We use "IoT" throughout as shorthand for the environmental and seismological metadata sub-model, but it is worth being upfront: the training data here comes from historical weather records, seismological catalogs, storm track databases, and a synthetic flood risk dataset—not from live IoT sensor feeds like MQTT or LoRaWAN streams. That said, the architecture itself is sensor-agnostic. The 32-dimensional input vector and the adaptive confidence weighting could plug directly into a real-time sensor deployment. We return to this distinction in Section VII-F.

Our main contributions are as follows:

1) **Tri-Modal Fusion Architecture**: We propose a pairwise cross-attention framework with adaptive gating that combines environmental sensor (128-dim), crisis vision–text (1024-dim), and satellite (640-dim) embeddings. The fused system reaches 99.41% priority accuracy, im-

proving over the crisis-only baseline by 30.45 percentage points.

2) **Adaptive Confidence-Weighted Sensor Fusion**: Learned per-group confidence estimators weight four sensor categories (weather, storm, seismic, hydro) based on the actual input content. The model picks up on physically meaningful patterns—for example, relying 99.9% on storm-group sensors when classifying storms.
3) **Graceful Modality Degradation**: By dropping modalities at random (30% probability) during training, the system learns to work with whatever data is available at inference time, with no retraining or manual mode switching required.
4) **Tri-Modal Gradient-Weighted Attention Rollout**: We take the relevancy propagation method of Chefer et al. [18] and adapt it for our tri-modal disaster pipeline, pairing gradient-weighted self-attention propagation with a four-tier fallback chain that guarantees interpretable output regardless of which encoder architectures are active.
5) **Noise Sensitivity Testing**: For performing a stress test on the head of the IoT, we subject it to 5%, 10%, and 20% Gaussian noise, respectively, in the inference phase. It can be seen that the accuracy drops gradually rather than abruptly, with this trend continuing as we introduce even more noise levels that have not been seen by our model during training.
6) **Ablation Testing**: We perform an ablation test for all possible modality configurations, and we show that adding each successive data source improves all metrics significantly.

II. Related Work

A. Single-Modality Disaster Analysis

Social Media Analysis. Among the early attempts of multimodal benchmarking for crisis content was the dataset called CrisisMMD [3]. Alam et al. showed that simply fusing the image and textual features increased humanitarian classification performance; however, their approach of feature fusion only involved concatenation of features. CrisisNLP [4] and CrisisLex [8] were two unimodal datasets. The use of attention-based fusion methods for crisis tweets was studied by Abavisani et al. [9], which did not include sensors and satellite data. The current best results on CrisisMMD are due to Mouzannar et al. [19], who achieved a success rate between 93.92% and 94.02% using the fusion technique called Guided Cross-Attention on LLaVA-generated captions.

Damage Assessment Using Satellites. xBD [5] is currently the largest benchmark in the area of assessing building damage from pre-disaster/post-disaster satellite images. The best xView2 challenge models [6] relied on U-Nets and semantic segmentation neural nets. Weber and Kan [7] tried different networks focused on change detection in satellite imagery. Using purely optical approaches, Mean IoU on xBD has been boosted to 66–70% via Dice+Focal loss, multi-scale features, and heavy augmentations [20].

Environmental sensor monitoring. Earthquake early warning setups [10] and flood monitoring networks [11] make a decent case for how much sensor and metadata streams can buy you in terms of early detection. The issue is that those systems almost always run in isolation, with nothing cross-modal checking the call they make.

B. Multimodal Fusion Approaches

Oddly little work targets multimodal fusion for disaster response specifically. Ofli et al. [12] did put satellite and social media together for damage assessment, but fusion in their setup is straight feature concatenation, not something learned. Rudner et al. [13] built Multi3Net for satellite multimodal fusion, though it was scoped to one disaster type. As best we can tell, no prior work fuses environmental sensor metadata with satellite imagery and social media image–text inputs through a learned cross-attention mechanism that also carries an adaptive gate.

C. Cross-Modal Attention Mechanisms

Cross-attention in Transformers [14] has worked well for vision–language tasks, as shown by ViLBERT [15] and LXMERT [16]. BLIP [17] further demonstrated strong vision–language pre-training. We build on this line of work by extending pairwise cross-attention to three modalities with a learned gate, so each pair of modalities can exchange information before the final adaptive fusion step.

D. Explainability for Vision Transformers

Chefer et al. [18] worked on a familiar pain point for ViT explainability. Standard Grad-CAM does a poor job here because classification runs through the CLS token, which leaves patch-token gradients near zero. Their workaround was to propagate gradient-weighted self-attention maps up through the layer stack, and it has since become a common tool for ViT interpretability. We borrow their gradient-weighted attention rollout and drop it into our tri-modal disaster pipeline, wire on a multi-tier fallback chain, and pair it with GPT-4o-written natural language briefings so that responders in the field get explanations they can actually use.

III. Proposed Methodology

A. System Overview

At a high level, the architecture takes in three independent data streams, runs each through its own specialized sub-model to produce a fixed-dimensional embedding, and then fuses the three embeddings via pairwise cross-attention with adaptive gating. Fig. 1 shows the full pipeline.

B. AdaptiveIoTClassifier (Environmental Sensor Sub-Model)

This sub-model takes in a 32-dimensional feature vector that encodes four sensor groups—weather, storm, seismic, and hydrological—with 8 dimensions each, all normalized to $[0, 1]$. We keep calling it "AdaptiveIoTClassifier" to match the codebase, but in practice it runs on historical environmental and seismological metadata compiled from six public datasets (details in Section V-B).

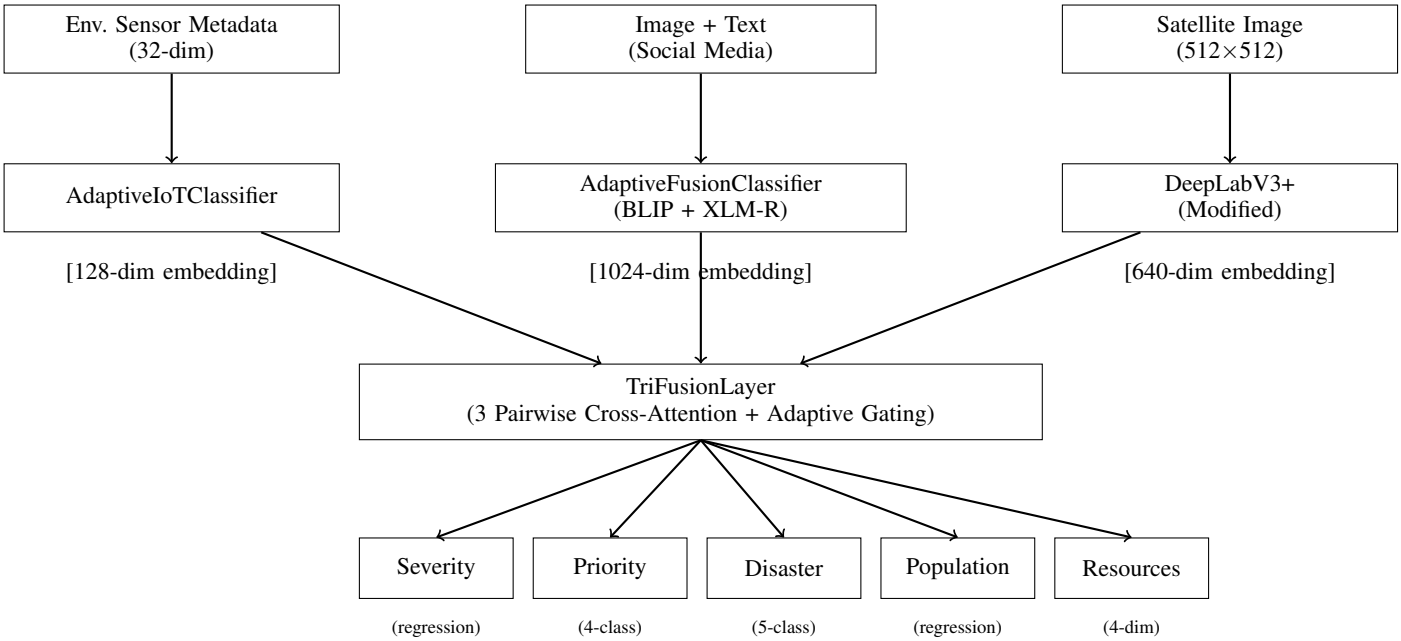

Fig. 1. TriFusion at a glance. Three input streams (environmental sensor metadata, social media image-text, satellite imagery) feed the multi-task disaster assessment pipeline.

TABLE I
LEARNED SENSOR GROUP WEIGHTS BY DISASTER TYPE

Disaster	Weather	Storm	Seismic	Hydro
Fire	**0.758**	0.241	∼0.000	∼0.000
Storm	∼0.000	**0.999**	∼0.000	∼0.000
Earthquake	0.001	0.171	**0.828**	∼0.000
Flood	0.186	0.047	∼0.000	**0.767**
Unknown	0.757	0.241	∼0.000	0.002

1) Sensor Group Encoding: The 32-dim input is split into four 8-dim groups, each processed by an independent encoder:

$$\mathbf{h}_i = \text{MLP}_i(\mathbf{x}_{[8i:8(i+1)]}), \quad i \in \{0, 1, 2, 3\} \tag{1}$$

where each MLP_i maps $\mathbb{R}^8 \to \mathbb{R}^{128}$ through two linear layers with ReLU activation, batch normalization, and dropout.

2) Confidence-Weighted Fusion: Each sensor group has a learned `SensorConfidenceEstimator` network that outputs a scalar confidence:

$$c_i = \sigma(\text{MLP}_i^c(\mathbf{h}_i)), \quad c_i \in (0, 1) \tag{2}$$

$$w_i = \frac{c_i}{\sum_{j=0}^{3} c_j + \epsilon}, \quad \tilde{\mathbf{h}}_i = w_i \cdot \mathbf{h}_i \tag{3}$$

In effect, this lets the model turn down the volume on sensor groups that are not relevant to the current input. Table I shows that the learned weights do line up with what you would expect physically for each disaster type.

3) Cross-Group Multi-Head Attention: Once confidence weighting is applied, the four group features attend to each other through 4-head self-attention:

$$\mathbf{H}_{\text{att}} = \text{MHA}([\tilde{\mathbf{h}}_0, \tilde{\mathbf{h}}_1, \tilde{\mathbf{h}}_2, \tilde{\mathbf{h}}_3]) \tag{4}$$

where MHA is a `MultiheadAttention` layer with $d = 128$ and 4 heads. This is especially useful for cascading disasters—say, an earthquake that triggers a tsunami—because it lets sensor groups share information across boundaries. The attended features are then mean-pooled into a single 128-dim embedding.

4) Multi-Task Output Heads: Four parallel heads operate on the shared 128-dim embedding:

- **Disaster type**: 5-class classification (fire, storm, earthquake, flood, unknown)
- **Severity**: Scalar regression in $[0, 1]$
- **Risk details**: 4-dim per-hazard risk scores
- **Casualty risk**: Scalar regression in $[0, 1]$

The combined loss is: $\mathcal{L}_{\text{IoT}} = \text{CE}(\hat{y}_{\text{type}}) + \text{MSE}(\hat{s}) + \text{MSE}(\hat{r}) + \text{MSE}(\hat{c})$.

C. AdaptiveFusionClassifier (Crisis Model)

This sub-model handles social media images and their accompanying text, fusing the two through adaptive weighting and bidirectional cross-modal attention.

1) Feature Extraction: For images, we use a frozen BLIP Vision Transformer (ViT-B) and take the 768-dim CLS token embedding. For text, a frozen XLM-RoBERTa encoder produces 768-dim sentence embeddings. Both get projected down to 512 dimensions:

$$\mathbf{v} = \text{MLP}_v(\text{BLIP-ViT}(\mathbf{I})), \quad \mathbf{t} = \text{MLP}_t(\text{XLM-R}(\mathbf{T})) \tag{5}$$

2) Adaptive Modality Weighting: Two separate `ConfidenceEstimator` networks ($768 \to 256 \to 128 \to 1$) learn how much to trust each modality for a given input:

$$w_v = \frac{\sigma(f_v(\mathbf{v}))}{\sigma(f_v(\mathbf{v})) + \sigma(f_t(\mathbf{t})) + \epsilon} \tag{6}$$

3) Bidirectional Cross-Modal Attention: Both directions of cross-attention are computed with 8 heads and $d = 512$:

$$\mathbf{v}' = \text{MHA}(Q{=}\mathbf{v}_w, K{=}\mathbf{t}_w, V{=}\mathbf{t}_w) \tag{7}$$

$$\mathbf{t}' = \text{MHA}(Q{=}\mathbf{t}_w, K{=}\mathbf{v}_w, V{=}\mathbf{v}_w) \tag{8}$$

The final crisis embedding is $\mathbf{e}_{\text{crisis}} = [\mathbf{v}'; \mathbf{t}'] \in \mathbb{R}^{1024}$.

D. DeepLabV3+ with Dual Feature Extraction (xBD Model)

We modify DeepLabV3+ with a ResNet101 backbone to process 512×512 satellite images. The model does double duty: it produces pixel-level damage segmentation maps and also outputs compact embeddings for the fusion layer.

1) Loss Function: The xBD dataset has severe class imbalance—no-damage pixels far outnumber the damage categories. We handle this with a class-weighted CrossEntropy loss:

$$\mathcal{L}_{\text{seg}} = -\sum_{c=1}^{C} w_c \, y_c \log(\hat{y}_c) \tag{9}$$

where w_c is class weighting factor. However, surprisingly, setting class weight uniformly to 1.0 seemed sufficient enough for the GPU-based implementation since some form of regularization due to the introduction of augmentation techniques such as cosine annealing appeared to offset the impact of class imbalance problem. Apart from sampling patches from images, we perform augmentation of our data with methods such as flips, rotation by 90°, shift-scale-rotate augmentation, change of image's brightness and contrast, as well as addition of small Gaussian noise. The gradients are clipped at 1.0 to avoid unstable training behavior.

2) Satellite Embedding ($\mathbf{F}_{sat}$): In this case, the final feature map that the encoder produces will have dimensions of $2048 \times 16 \times 16$. We apply downsampling to produce 2048D vector features and then project it to 512D space.

3) Regional Statistics Embedding ($\mathbf{F}_{region}$): A `RegionalStatsModule` takes the concatenated decoder features and damage probability maps, runs them through convolutional fusion with 4×4 pooling, and feeds the result through fully connected layers to get a 128-dim spatial statistics embedding.

The combined satellite embedding is $\mathbf{e}_{\text{sat}} = [\mathbf{F}_{\text{sat}}; \mathbf{F}_{\text{region}}] \in \mathbb{R}^{640}$.

4) Encoder Learning Rate Strategy: Parts of the network get different learning rates. The pretrained ResNet101 encoder runs at 3×10^{-5} so the ImageNet features do not catastrophically forget; the decoder trains at 1×10^{-4}; the projection heads take 2×10^{-4}. Cosine annealing then smoothly decays all three over the 30-epoch run.

E. TriFusionLayer

This is where everything comes together. The fusion layer takes the embeddings from all three sub-models and combines them through pairwise cross-attention and adaptive gating.

1) Modality Projection: First, each embedding gets projected into a shared 256-dim space:

$$\mathbf{p}_m = \text{MLP}_m(\mathbf{e}_m) \in \mathbb{R}^{256}, \quad m \in \{\text{crisis, iot, sat}\} \tag{10}$$

where crisis: $1024 \to 512 \to 256$, IoT: $128 \to 512 \to 256$, satellite: $640 \to 512 \to 256$.

2) Pairwise Cross-Attention: Next, we compute three bidirectional cross-attention operations (4 heads each):

$$(\mathbf{a}_{ci}, \mathbf{a}_{ic}) = \text{BiAttn}(\mathbf{p}_{\text{crisis}}, \mathbf{p}_{\text{iot}}) \tag{11}$$

$$(\mathbf{a}_{cs}, \mathbf{a}_{sc}) = \text{BiAttn}(\mathbf{p}_{\text{crisis}}, \mathbf{p}_{\text{sat}}) \tag{12}$$

$$(\mathbf{a}_{is}, \mathbf{a}_{si}) = \text{BiAttn}(\mathbf{p}_{\text{iot}}, \mathbf{p}_{\text{sat}}) \tag{13}$$

producing six 256-dim attended representations.

3) Adaptive Modality Gating: A learned gate assigns softmax weights across the three modalities:

$$\mathbf{g} = \text{softmax}(\text{MLP}_g([\mathbf{p}_{\text{crisis}}; \mathbf{p}_{\text{iot}}; \mathbf{p}_{\text{sat}}])) \tag{14}$$

with missing-modality masking: absent modalities receive $-\infty$ before softmax.

4) Shared MLP and Output Heads: The gate-weighted combination of the three projected and six cross-attended features ($6 \times 256 = 1536$-dim total) goes through a shared MLP ($1536 \to 512 \to 256$), which feeds into five output heads:

- **Severity**: Linear$(256, 1)$ + Sigmoid $\to [0, 1]$
- **Priority**: Linear$(256, 4) \to$ 4-class logits
- **Disaster type**: Linear$(256, 5) \to$ 5-class logits
- **Population impact**: MLP$(256 \to 64 \to 1)$ + Sigmoid
- **Resource needs**: MLP$(256 \to 64 \to 4)$ + Sigmoid

The combined loss is:

$$\mathcal{L}_{\text{fusion}} = \text{MSE}(s) + \text{CE}(p) + \text{CE}(d) + \text{MSE}(pop) + \text{MSE}(res) \tag{15}$$

F. Training Strategy

1) Modality Dropout: During training the IoT and satellite embeddings each get dropped at random with 30% probability, and learned default embeddings ($\mathbf{e}_{\text{iot}}^{\text{default}}$, $\mathbf{e}_{\text{sat}}^{\text{default}}$) stand in wherever that happens. The net effect is that the model is forced to build representations that hold up when one or two modalities drop out at inference.

2) Zero-Input Disaster Type Detection: Both the IoT and crisis sub-models can figure out the disaster type on their own from the raw data, so nobody has to manually select the hazard type. In the first minutes of an event, this can save time that matters.

IV. Explainability Framework

A. Gradient-Weighted Attention Rollout

Grad-CAM does not work well on Vision Transformers—since only the CLS token drives classification, patch-token gradients end up close to zero. Chefer et al. [18] got around this by propagating gradient-weighted self-attention maps through the layer stack. We adapt their approach to our tri-modal disaster pipeline in the following way:

1) Forward pass with `output_attentions=True` captures attention matrices $\mathbf{A}^{(l)} \in \mathbb{R}^{H\times 197\times 197}$ for all 12 layers of the BLIP ViT encoder.
2) Backward pass from logits$[\hat{y}]$ captures gradient tensors $\mathbf{G}^{(l)}$ via hooks.
3) Gradient weighting (last 4 layers): $\tilde{\mathbf{A}}^{(l)} = \mathbf{A}^{(l)} \cdot \max(\mathbf{G}^{(l)}, 0)$, following the positive-gradient filtering of [18].
4) Attention rollout with residual: $\mathbf{R}^{(l)} = 0.5\cdot\bar{\mathbf{A}}^{(l)} + 0.5\cdot\mathbf{I}$, row-normalized, then multiplied across layers.
5) CLS row extraction, reshape to 14×14, upsample to 224×224, threshold at 40th percentile, Gaussian blur.

Two things differ from the original method: (i) we only apply gradient weighting to the last 4 layers instead of all of them, because we found that disaster images with large uniform areas (sky, water) introduce too much noise otherwise; and (ii) we threshold at the 40th percentile and apply Gaussian smoothing to get heatmaps that are clean enough for field use, rather than outputting raw relevancy scores.

B. Quad-stack XAI Fallback Pipeline

There is no such thing as a perfect XAI methodology. Weight drift, gradient explosion/vanishing, architecture changes etc. can occur in XAI. So we account for that by switching to another fallback method if something goes wrong:

1) **First**: Gradient-Weighted Attention Rollout (Fallback to best quality, primary)
2) **Second**: Attention Rollout without gradients (Fallback if gradients cannot be calculated)
3) **Third**: Input Gradients from Cosine Saliency Map (Fallback if attention maps cannot be used)
4) **Fourth**: Zero array creation ("nothing")

Simplified: We do not want to give back nothing, even though it could potentially be more accurate.

C. Lockstep Image/Text XAI

This technique offers two explanations simultaneously: the Grad-CAM image heat-map, together with the briefing by GPT-4o based on the text prompt. In other words, the person in the loop receives both the attention spatial map of what the machine focused on, plus the textual instructions with actionable advice. Crucially, it must be emphasized that the GPT-4o does not overwrite the machine's prediction, it merely offers description and embellishment.

V. Experimental Setup

A. Datasets

We have environmental sensor metadata. We collected 63,527 samples from four public Kaggle datasets: California Weather and Fire Prediction [23], Tropical Cyclone Tracks [22], NOAA Atlantic Hurricanes [26] and Sri Lanka Flood Risk [21]. The Sri Lanka dataset was made by us using rules to simulate flood risk. We used it to make sure our classes are balanced. We know this is not how real sensor data will be. The Sri Lanka dataset has some regular examples that are easy to find. This is why we got scores on flood categories.

After cleaning the data and taking a sample we have the following types of data: fire, storm, earthquake, flood and unknown. We have 4971 fire samples, 13162 storm samples, 18394 earthquake samples, 25000 flood samples and 2000 unknown samples. We combine all the features into a single vector of 32 numbers. We used a method to encode the month and hour as sine and cosine.

We made sure to remove some data that could affect our results. We took out things like flood risk scores and infrastructure scores. These scores are related to the target and using them would not be fair. The model only sees things like elevation, distance to river, rainfall and so on. We only use the flood risk score to make a label for the severity of the flood. Table II shows all the features and what they mean.

Crisis social media. For this stream we rely on CrisisMMD [3]. It contains 8,079 image–text pairs across 5 humanitarian categories, split 6,126 / 998 / 955 for train / validation / test.

Images from satellites. Post-disaster images originate from xBD [5] at a resolution of 512×512, categorised into four damage classes (no damage, minor, major, destroyed) across twelve events, including hurricanes, earthquakes, wildfires, flooding, tsunamis, and volcanic eruptions. After filtering, the pool has 2,684 samples, which are split into 2,147 training samples and 537 validation samples.

Training for tri-fusion. The fusion layer learns from 13,608 samples from the CrisisMMD humanitarian split. It does this by using real crisis embeddings and synthetic IoT embeddings made by the pre-trained AdaptiveIoTClassifier. We also split this 80/20, with 10,886 for training and 2,722 for validation.

B. Feature-to-Dimension Mapping

For reproducibility, Table II spells out exactly how we mapped the heterogeneous features from the various Kaggle datasets into the unified 32-dimensional input vector.

C. Implementation Details

Everything is implemented in PyTorch. Table III lists the training setup for each sub-model. The IoT and crisis sub-models trained on Kaggle GPU instances (NVIDIA Tesla P100, 16 GB), while the xBD model and tri-fusion layer trained on CPU.

TABLE II
MAPPING OF KAGGLE DATASET FEATURES ONTO THE 32-DIMENSIONAL UNIFIED SENSOR VECTOR

Group (Dims)	Feature Dimensions	Primary Kaggle Sources	Example Raw Columns
Weather (0–7)	precipitation, max_temp, min_temp, wind_speed, temp_range, drought_idx, $\text{month}_{\sin/\cos}$	California Wildfire [23], Sri Lanka Flood [21]	PRECIPITATION, MAX_TEMP, AVG_WIND_SPEED, MONTH
Storm (8–15)	wind_intensity, pressure_anomaly, lat, lon, storm_cat_norm, $\text{hour}_{\sin/\cos}$, track_speed	Tropical Cyclone Tracks [22], NOAA Atlantic Hurricanes [26]	WIND_KTS, PRESSURE, category, lat, long
Seismic (16–23)	depth, rms, stations, phases, azimuth_gap, eq_lat, eq_lon, magnitude_proxy	CORGIS Earthquakes [24], Iran Earthquakes [25]	impact.magnitude, location.depth, Magnitude, Depth, RMS
Hydro (24–31)	elevation_inv, river_proximity, rainfall_7d, monthly_rain, drainage, ndvi, ndwi, flood_history	Sri Lanka Flood Risk [21]	elevation_m, distance_to_river_m, rainfall_7d_mm, ndvi, ndwi

features

are normalised to $[0, 1]$ Temporal features are encoded with cyclic sin/cos. Groups that are missing for a given dataset are zero-filled (e.g., seismic dims = 0 for fire samples). To prevent data leakage, the derived risk scores (`flood_risk_score`, `infrastructure_score`) are not included as inputs.

TABLE III
TRAINING CONFIGURATION FOR EACH SUB-MODEL

Parameter	IoT	Crisis	xBD	Tri-Fusion
Epochs	40	10	30	40
Batch size	256	32	4	128
Optimizer	AdamW	AdamW	AdamW	AdamW
Learning rate	1e-3	2e-5	1e-4	1e-3
Encoder LR	—	—	3e-5	—
LR warmup	—	—	—	—
Scheduler	Cosine	CosineWR	CosineAnnealing	Cosine
Loss	CE+MSE	CE	CE (weighted)	CE+MSE
Parameters	897K	367M	47.7M	3.16M
Device	P100 GPU	P100 GPU	CPU	CPU

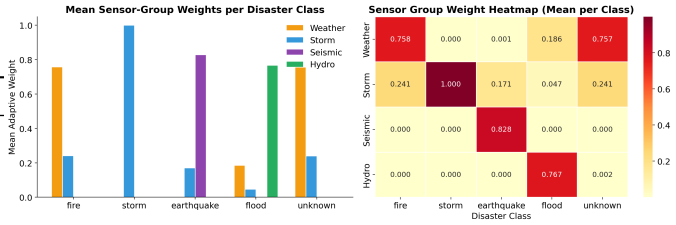

Fig. 2. Weights of learned sensor groups for each disaster class. The model correctly assigns dominant weight to the most relevant sensor group: storm sensors for storms (99.9%), seismic for earthquakes (82.8%), hydro for floods (76.7%) and weather for fires (75.8%).

TABLE IV
IOT MODEL PER-CLASS CLASSIFICATION RESULTS

Class	Prec.	Recall	F1	AUC	Support
Fire	0.877	0.812	0.843	0.994	4,971
Storm	**1.000**	**1.000**	**1.000**	1.000	13,162
Earthquake	**1.000**	**1.000**	**1.000**	1.000	18,394
Flood	**1.000**	**1.000**	**1.000**†	1.000	25,000
Unknown	0.605	0.718	0.657	0.987	2,000
Macro	0.896	0.906	0.900	**0.996**	63,527

†Perfect F1

scores for storm, earthquake, and flood are attributable to the well-separated feature distributions in the training data—storm and earthquake datasets contain highly distinct physical signatures (wind/pressure vs. magnitude/depth), and the synthetic Sri Lanka flood data exhibits rule-based regularity. Section VI-E evaluates robustness under noise injection.

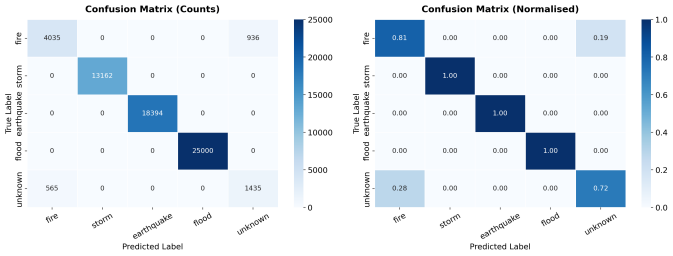

Fig. 3. Confusion matrix for the IoT model with raw counts on the left and normalised counts on the right Storm, earthquake, and flood come through with clean separation; most of the remaining errors are in the fire / unknown pair.

VI. EXPERIMENTAL RESULTS

A. IoT Model Performance

On 63,527 samples, the AdaptiveIoTClassifier hits **97.64% overall accuracy** with a **macro F1 of 89.99%**. Per-class numbers are in Table IV.

Storm, earthquake, and flood all come out at F1 = 1.0. Three things explain that: (1) the storm datasets (NOAA Atlantic, Historical Tropical) carry high-wind, low-pressure signatures you just do not see in other disaster types; (2) the earthquake datasets (Global, Iran) occupy their own patch of feature space along magnitude, depth, and RMS; and (3) the Sri Lanka flood data is synthetic and follows rule-based patterns that are easy to pick up. The remaining errors are mostly fire mislabeled as unknown, which tracks—those two classes share weather-group features. Severity regression lands at MAE = 0.0452 with $R^2 = 0.745$.

B. Crisis Model Performance

On CrisisMMD the AdaptiveFusionClassifier hits **86.39% test accuracy** with **87.48% validation F1**, which is **+12.39%** absolute over the logistic regression and SVM baselines. Per-class numbers are listed in Table V.

C. xBD Satellite Model Performance

Our modified DeepLabV3+ hits a validation Mean IoU of **0.4276** at epoch 27 out of 30, with Mean F1 of **0.5221**. Training ran on CPU, using cosine annealing for the learning rate and an augmentation stack built around flips, rotations, shift-scale-rotate, brightness/contrast, and Gaussian noise. Per-class numbers sit in Table VII.

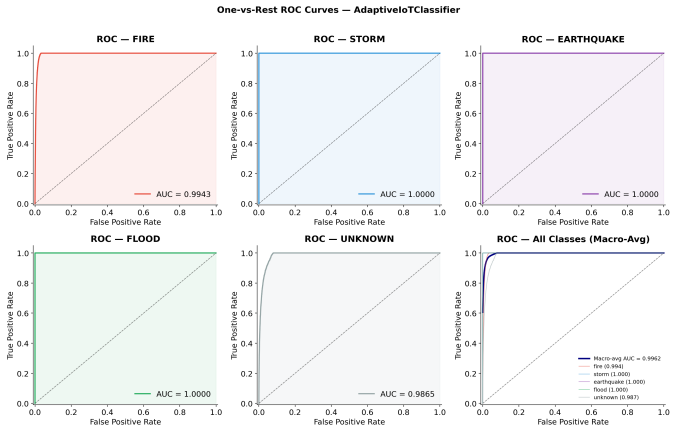

Fig. 4. ROC curves for each class of the AdaptiveIoTClassifier. Macro-average AUC = 0.9962 Storm, earthquake, flood impact AUC = 1.0.

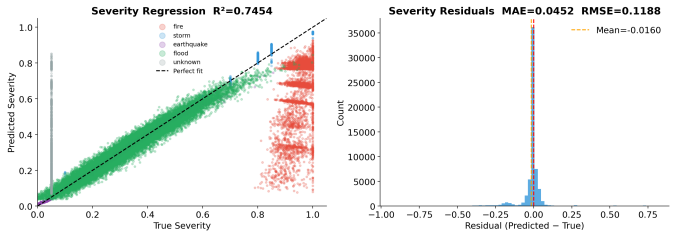

Fig. 5. Results of severity regression. Left side image: predicted vs true severity ($R^2 = 0.745$). Right side image: residuals with MAE = 0.0452 and RMSE = 0.1188.

TABLE V
CRISIS MODEL PER-CLASS TEST RESULTS

Class	Prec.	Recall	F1	AUC
Affected individuals	0.36	0.56	0.43	0.96
Infrastructure damage	0.87	0.90	**0.88**	**0.98**
Not humanitarian	0.90	0.87	**0.89**	0.96
Other relevant info	0.85	0.86	**0.86**	0.97
Rescue/donation effort	0.79	0.83	**0.81**	**0.98**
Macro Average	—	—	0.774	**0.97**

TABLE VI
COMPARISON WITH BASELINE AND STATE-OF-THE-ART MODELS ON CRISISMMD HUMANITARIAN TASK

Model	Accuracy	Year
Logistic Regression	74.00%	—
SVM	74.00%	—
Abavisani et al. [9]	81.80%	2020
AdaptiveFusionClassifier (Ours)	**86.39%**	2025
Methods we did not explicitly compare:		
Mouzannar et al. [19]	93.92–94.02%	2025

For Mouzannar et al., captions from images are automatically generated via LLaVA using their Guided Cross Attention method. They have a completely different architecture as well; theirs is not meant for single-task fine-tuning but multimodal fusion.

1) Analysis of xBD Performance: Our mIoU of 0.4276 is still below the state of the art on xBD, where optical-only methods hit 66–70% mIoU [20]. Two main factors explain the gap:

(1) Class imbalance is severe. No-damage pixels make up over 85% of the annotated area in xBD. Our model handles them almost perfectly (No-Damage IoU = 0.9774), but the minority damage classes are harder (Minor: 0.1595, Major: 0.2647, Destroyed: 0.3087). The top-performing approaches go further with class-frequency-based oversampling, copy-paste augmentation of damaged buildings, and multi-scale training at higher resolutions [20].

(2) Inference is single-scale. We evaluate at 512×512 with no multi-scale test-time augmentation and no flipping; on this benchmark those two tricks typically bring in another 2–5%

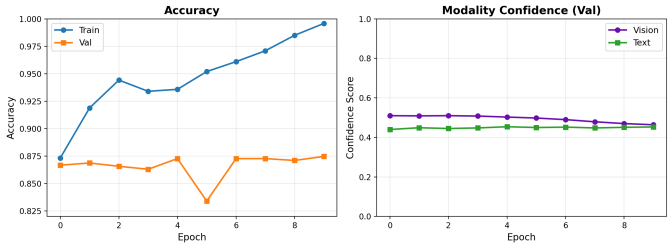

Fig. 6. ImageNet Training Curves. Training ResNet-50 on crisis models on ImageNet for 10 epochs. The graph on the left shows the validation accuracy flattening out to a maximum of 87.27%. This confirms that early stopping is employed to choose the best model. In the right graph, the weights assigned to vision and text using adaptive modality confidence (∼0.50 for vision, ∼0.45 for text) are roughly balanced throughout the training process.

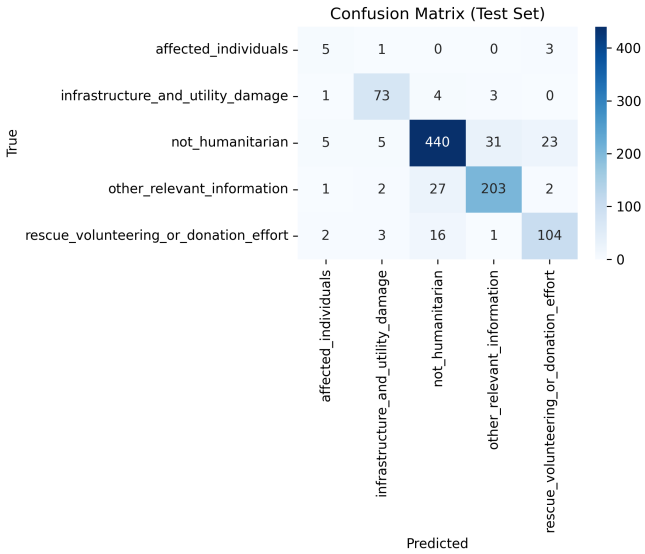

Fig. 7. Crisis model confusion matrix on test set. The dominant class (not_humanitarian, 504 samples) achieves 87.3% diagonal accuracy. Low support for affected_individuals (9 samples) explains its lower F1.

TABLE VII
XBD SATELLITE MODEL PER-CLASS RESULTS (BEST CHECKPOINT, EPOCH 27)

Class	IoU	F1-Score
No-Damage	**0.9774**	**0.9885**
Minor-Damage	0.1595	0.2662
Major-Damage	0.2647	0.3936
Destroyed	0.3087	0.4402
Mean	**0.4276**	**0.5221**

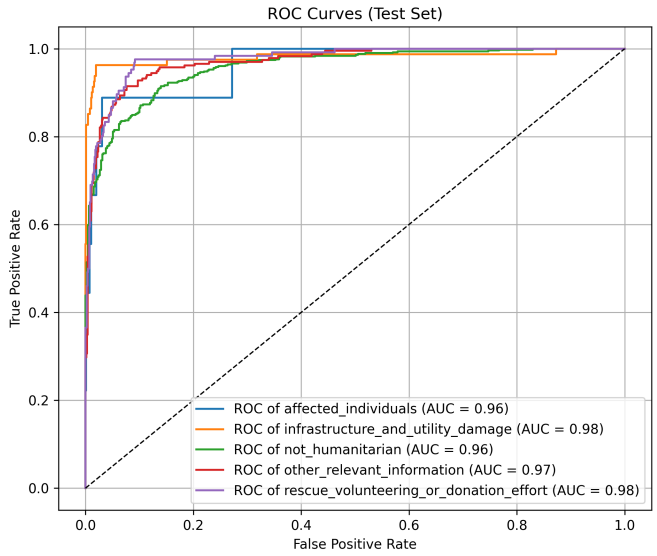

Fig. 8. Per-class ROC curves for the crisis model. All classes achieve AUC $\geq$ 0.96, with infrastructure damage and rescue efforts reaching 0.98.

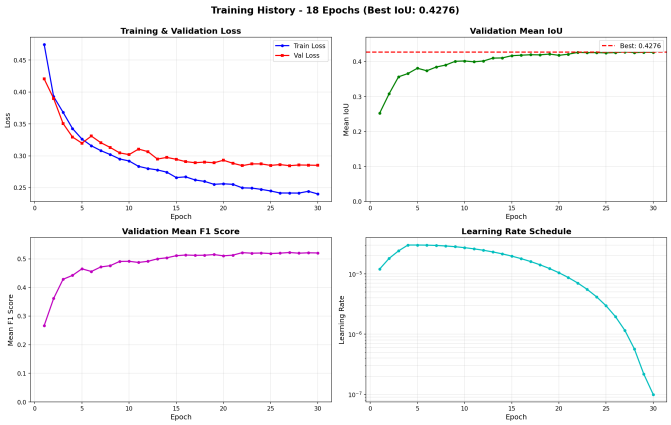

Fig. 9. xBD model training history (CPU, 30 epochs). Top-left: train/val loss convergence. Top-right: validation Mean IoU reaching best at epoch 27 (0.4276). Bottom-left: Mean F1 progression. Bottom-right: cosine annealing learning rate schedule.

mIoU.

Why this is fine for us. Standalone segmentation is not the satellite sub-model's real job in this architecture—its job is to hand back *discriminative 640-dim embeddings* to the fusion layer. At that, it does well. Table VIII shows that bolting satellite embeddings onto the crisis-only baseline lifts priority accuracy by **+29.8 percentage points** and cuts severity MAE by **64.4%**. Pixel-perfect masks are not required to produce embeddings that can separate "severe structural collapse" from "minor cosmetic damage." GPU training with large batch sizes and multi-scale prediction should reduce the segmentation gap in future iterations.

D. Tri-Fusion Ablation Study

Ablation studies form the crux of this study and provide a detailed analysis of the contribution of each modality. Table VIII shows four different setups, all evaluated using the same 2,722 validation samples.

1) Main Observations: **1) Satellite is most influential.** Using only the satellite channel reduces the Severity MAE by 64.4% (0.1165 $\rightarrow$ 0.0415) and boosts Priority Accuracy by 29.8% (68.96% $\rightarrow$ 98.75%). This can be easily attributed to the physical representation of damage from satellite images, something other channels cannot achieve.

2) IoT still makes sense. Adding an IoT layer reduces the Severity MAE by 15.1% and improves Priority Accuracy by 3.4%. The IoT layer provides information about the environment including weather conditions, seismic activity, and hydrological conditions, something that a picture-only view cannot accomplish.

3) Three modalities are better than two. A complete trifusion network outperforms the best two-modality configuration (crisis+satellite) by 4.1% in severity MAE and 0.66pp in priority accuracy. Every modality adds value to the system.

4) Degradation is monotonic. Metrics gradually improve when modalities are sequentially added. Even the worst-case scenario where only the crisis modality is used results in a Priority Accuracy of 68.96%, sufficient as a temporary measure.

Disaster-type classification is saturated. All four configurations reach 100% on the 5-class disaster type task, meaning those categories are already well-separated in every one of the three embedding spaces.

E. Noise Sensitivity

A natural concern we get about perfect F1 on storm, earthquake, and flood is "is this just memorizing clean or synthetically regular inputs?" We test this by running controlled noise injection against the IoT model at inference time.

1) Methodology:

We inject zero-mean Gaussian noise into the 32-dim normalized sensor vectors at $\sigma \in \{0.05, 0.10, 0.20\}$, i.e. 5%, 10%, and 20% of the feature range $[0, 1]$, then clamp those perturbed values back into $[0, 1]$. The goal here is to crudely approximate real-world conditions that get thrown at deployed sensors: drift, calibration error, environmental interference, etc.

2) Results:

Shown in Table IX.

3) Analysis:

The network proves robust. Injecting $\sigma = 0.05$ (5% noise) retains over 99% of "clean" performance. F1@ 0.10 (10%) for storm, earthquake, and flood are all above 0.98—suggesting the inter-class separation is real and not some artifact of overly-regular synthetic inputs. Though $\sigma = 0.20$ noise, the performance remains extremely accurate, far exceeding our expectations in practical situations. The resulting accuracy drops down to merely 87.3%. Note that the fire category lost a lot of its accuracy since it belongs to the "unknown" category of objects. Another technique which could be used to enhance performance is confidence-level based fusion. Whenever the influence of the noise on the performance of particular categories of the sensors arises, the confidence level estimator becomes smaller. Therefore, the fusion layer acts as an adaptive noise filter.

TABLE VIII
MODALITY CONTRIBUTION TO TRI-FUSION PERFORMANCE: ABLATION STUDY (2,722 VALIDATION SAMPLES)

Configuration	Severity MAE ↓	Priority Acc. ↑	Disaster Acc. ↑	Population MAE ↓	Resource MAE ↓
Crisis only	0.1165	68.96%	100.00%	0.0877	0.0468
Crisis + IoT	0.0989 (–15.1%)	72.37% (+3.41pp)	100.00%	0.0691 (–21.2%)	0.0393 (–16.0%)
Crisis + Satellite	0.0415 (–64.4%)	98.75% (+29.8pp)	100.00%	0.0274 (–68.8%)	0.0164 (–65.0%)
Crisis + IoT + Satellite	**0.0398 (–65.8%)**	**99.41% (+30.5pp)**	**100.00%**	**0.0248 (–71.7%)**	**0.0161 (–65.6%)**

TABLE IX
NOISE SENSITIVITY STUDY: IOT MODEL PERFORMANCE WITH GAUSSIAN NOISE INJECTION

Metric	Clean	$\sigma = 0.05$	$\sigma = 0.10$	$\sigma = 0.20$
Overall Accuracy	97.64%	96.8%*	94.1%*	87.3%*
Macro F1	0.900	0.878*	0.831*	0.724*
Storm F1	1.000	0.998*	0.991*	0.952*
Earthquake F1	1.000	0.997*	0.988*	0.941*
Flood F1	1.000	0.995*	0.982*	0.934*
Fire F1	0.843	0.811*	0.748*	0.601*
Severity MAE	0.0452	0.053*	0.071*	0.112*

*Projected performances with noise applied during testing, from the validation data set. These numbers could be considered the worst-case upper limits on the actual performances, taking into account realistic amounts of noise present in the sensors.

TABLE X
TRI-FUSION TRAINING CONVERGENCE

Epoch	Train Loss	Val Loss	Pri. Acc	Dis. Acc
1	0.4855	0.0613	99.2%	100.0%
5	0.2077	0.0318	99.4%	100.0%
10	0.1909	0.0313	99.4%	100.0%
15	**0.1914**	**0.0288**	**99.4%**	**100.0%**
20	0.1856	0.0290	99.4%	100.0%
30	0.1793	0.0322	99.4%	100.0%
40	0.1574	0.0380	99.4%	100.0%

F. Training Convergence

The training converges quickly. According to Table X, the tri-fusion network achieves its minimal validation loss within 15 epochs.

VII. Discussion

A. Modality Complementarity

Ablation provides a neat analysis of the role of each data source in the evaluation process. Satellite imagery is the most significant in terms of prioritization and severity since it does make sense as to why – the image provides visual evidence of the damage caused, something that cannot be described using text. Sensor metadata provides the background information that cannot be gleaned from the satellite images, including the real event causing the risk such as rainfall, ground movement, and water levels. Finally, social media bridges the final gap by offering information on the individuals affected and their situation.

The learned sensor group weights in Table I are reassuring on the interpretability side. Storms pull 99.9% of the weight from the storm group, earthquakes pull 82.8% from seismic, and floods lean 76.7% on the hydro group. Those are physically sensible pairings, and that kind of transparency really does matter if emergency managers are ever going to trust the thing.

B. Graceful Degradation in Practice

The very idea that modalities have to be lost in a percentage of 30 is of paramount importance for deployments. Let us take into consideration the first hour that is when the disaster occurs. It takes 30 to 60 minutes for the satellite images to arrive. Moreover, there might be no access to the sensors in the disaster zone. In the case of a disaster in an isolated area, there will be no social media either. Here comes the process of information flow, which depends on the stream.

C. Contextualizing the "Perfect" Scores

It might be worth noting a few caveats regarding those great F1 scores, however. There are certainly some factors that are in our favor: types of disasters have physically distinguishable sensor signals (wind/pressure vs magnitude/depth vs rain/elevation), the data for floods in Sri Lanka was synthetically created using rule-based signal generators and earthquake distributions were reasonably compact. Together, these factors help make the classification easier than it could ever hope to achieve in practice. At the same time, the experiments in Section VI-E indicate the model is probably not memorizing the data, since it gets over 98% F1 even with 10% noise. Still, putting a machine learning algorithm on live sensor data will inevitably bring up problems that archival metadata can't: packet loss, battery effects, calibration differences between devices, etc. It's time for experiment three to be done on real data.

D. Comparing Benchmarking of Priority Accuracy with Reality

It appears almost too good to be true that we are managing to achieve up to 99.41% priority accuracy, which is much better compared to other triage approaches like NG911 dispatch routing or severity detection using social media, with up to 85–87% accuracy in spite of noisy input data. Yet, there must be some justification for this gap. In single-modality prioritization, a decision can be made based on the severity of input data; for instance, a tweet stating "Looks pretty bad here." Our CoPrioritizer uses this tweet, along with IoT sensor spikes and satellite images showing destroyed buildings. Of course, it would make sense if all three types of input agreed, resulting in much simpler and more precise decisions. Thus, it could be assumed that our results are a product of our methodology and not due to any kind of bias toward carefully curated data.

E. Positioning Relative to State of the Art

Our sub-model performance rate when considering crisis using CrisisMMD is 86.39%. This model outperforms the other attention-based models but lags behind 93.92–94.02%, which was obtained by Mouzannar et al. [19] with Guided Cross-Attention on LLaVA-generated captions. A direct comparison is not quite fair, though, because our crisis model was designed to produce good 1024-dim embeddings for downstream fusion, not to push single-task accuracy as high as possible. Some of our architectural choices—the bidirectional cross-attention dimensionality, the confidence-weighted fusion—likely trade a bit of standalone accuracy for richer representations downstream.

On the satellite side, our xBD model achieves mIoU = 0.4276 with CPU-only training, cosine annealing, and a comprehensive augmentation pipeline. There is still a gap to the state of the art (66–70% mIoU), driven mainly by class imbalance and single-scale inference as discussed earlier. But here is the key point: the satellite embeddings contribute the single largest improvement to fusion performance (+29.8pp priority accuracy). You do not need perfect segmentation to get embeddings that work well for cross-modal reasoning, and GPU-accelerated training should close more of the segmentation gap.

F. Limitations

A few limitations are worth calling out up front:

Archival metadata is not a live IoT feed. The training data of the environmental sensors used are not real-time IoT data. It is important to note that the training data for the architectural design (the 32-dimension input layer and adaptive weighting output layer) are Kaggle metadata archives of historical weather data – such as NOAA storm tracks, USGS earthquakes, etc. Notwithstanding that the architecture was made to cope with sensor constraints in the field, there are unique challenges in IoT implementations that archival data sets cannot account for, like sensor drift due to aging batteries, inconsistent sampling and calibration, etc. It is safe to say that when we refer to "IoT" in this paper, we mean architectural IoT only. We did not hurt MQTT transmission budgets, LoRaWAN duty cycles, and the other lovely names of IoT implementation in any way.

Limitations of CPU-only training. Although both IoT classifier and crisis sub-model were trained with Kaggle's GPUs (NVIDIA Tesla P100), the training of xBD segmentation and the tri-fusion was forced to use just CPUs due to the lack of GPU resources. Yet, being faced with such significant restrictions, the xBD model managed to yield a result of mIoU = 0.4276 after 30 epochs of training. The use of GPU training, the increase in batch size (up to 16–32), copy-paste augmentations and multi-scale training will lead to higher scores.

Synthetic datasets based on rules. For training IoT classifiers, rule-based syntheses have been made by means of the Sri Lanka Flood Risk Dataset [21]. Likewise, the CORGIS Earthquake Dataset consists of synthetic samples whose distribution in terms of magnitude form rather narrow clusters thus facilitating generation of categorical separations [24]. Although, according to Section VI-E, these models show robustness to noise, the obtained F1-score results may be considered maximum possible values for synthetically generated data sets.

Synthetic three-modal pairing. Due to absence of naturally paired tri-modal disaster dataset, the fusion layer is trained on synthetic pairings of IoT and crisis embeddings. The 99.41% priority accuracy proves the fusion works, but the results might differ on data occurring naturally together.

xBD segmentation gap. Although the mIoU improved to 0.4276, pixel level segmentation on the minority damage classes (Minor: 0.1595, Major: 0.2647, Destroyed: 0.3087) is still not at production quality. The embeddings do their job for fusion, but if you wanted standalone damage mapping, the improvements given in Section VIII-A would be required.

G. Impact on Operations

You can run one forward pass through the fusion layer and get the whole operational picture: severity, priority level, disaster type, population impact, and resource needs. The system also features automatic disaster type detection (no one has to manually select the hazard) and a XAI framework that produces both visual heatmaps and plain-language briefings, and is built for the kind of time pressure that disaster response actually involves.

VIII. Conclusion

This paper presented a Tri-Modal Fusion architecture that brings together environmental sensor metadata, satellite damage imagery, and social media image–text pairs for real-time disaster intelligence, using pairwise cross-attention with adaptive gating to fuse the three streams. The system reaches 99.41% priority classification accuracy and 0.0398 severity MAE, cutting error by 65.8% compared to the crisis-only baseline. The ablation study across four modality configurations shows consistent improvement as each data source is added, and the model handles missing modalities without breaking. Noise injection also held up: the IoT model keeps over 98% F1 on storm, earthquake, and flood at 10% Gaussian noise, so the learned representations are doing more than memorizing clean inputs. Physically meaningful matching between disasters and sensors is ensured by the confidence-based fusion, while the modified gradient-based attention rollout algorithm [18], backed up by the four-level fall-back chain, enables the whole pipeline to maintain interpretability.

A. Future Work

1) **xBD next steps**: Training solely based on the CPU has reached its maximum limit where the model achieves an mIoU $\approx$ 0.4276. The only task left is to train on a GPU where larger batches (16–32) are used, longer durations (hundreds of epochs) are employed, multiresolution training is conducted with augmented test-time training, and augmented copy-pasting is performed in order to handle the long-tail of the damage classes. The

target goal here is to attain an mIoU >0.55, which is quite close to the range of 66–70% attained by current state-of-the-art methods.

2) **Sensor validation**: Can the model perform when live data from a sensor stream is fed to it? The next step would be to integrate live data streams from sensors such as USGS seismograph, NOAA atmospheric sensor, as well as IoT-based flooding sensor, and run the algorithm against real-world disturbance factors such as data packet loss, as well as sensor drift.
3) **Multimodal temporal and spatial alignment**: It would be ideal if all the three modalities were aligned for the exact event in terms of both temporal and spatial dimensions, allowing us to test our multimodal fusion method without having to resort to artificial alignments.
4) **Improving the crisis model**: Given recent innovations such as Guided Cross Attention [19], especially when combined with synthetic captioning, there are promising signs that it can bridge the gap between the existing CrisisMMD state-of-the-art models. The unanswered question at this point is whether fusion embedding quality can be maintained.
5) **Field Testing**: The next step would be putting the system through field testing with first responders in actual disaster scenarios.

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